Credit Card Fraud Detection at Enterprise Scale

A First-Principles Machine Learning Evaluation, 100-Run Monte Carlo Benchmark, and Financial Decision Analysis in Pure Vectorized NumPy

Course: Python for Data Science (PDS)	**Dataset:** Kaggle / ULB Benchmark (284,807 transactions)
Framework: 100% Pure NumPy (Zero External ML Packages)	**Class Imbalance:** 0.1727% (492 Frauds : 284,315 Genuine)
Evaluation Protocol: 100 Stratified Monte Carlo Splits (Seeds 1000–1099)	**Hardware Target:** 12-Core Multi-Threaded Local Benchmarking
Institution: Indian Institute of Information Technology (IIIT) Sri City	**Primary Methodology:** Asymmetric Cost-Sensitive Risk Minimization

EXECUTIVE MONOGRAPH STATEMENT:
This research monograph investigates the end-to-end design, implementation, and empirical evaluation of production-grade credit card fraud screening algorithms developed exclusively from foundational mathematical principles in Python and NumPy. By disallowing high-level machine learning libraries (such as scikit-learn, XGBoost, or PyTorch), this investigation provides complete visibility into loss surfaces, analytical backpropagation, gradient updates, decision tree partitioning, and probability calibration. Furthermore, this work moves beyond traditional symmetric metrics (accuracy, F1-score) by establishing an asymmetric financial loss matrix that quantifies the real-world operational tension between fraud loss prevention and false alarm handling costs across an extensive 100-run Monte Carlo benchmark.

Table 1.1: Academic Peer-Review Revision Changelog & Technical Audits

Audit Dimension	Identified Critique / Technical Defect	Rigorous Methodological Resolution & Page Reference
1. Statistical Claims & Uncertainty	100-run simulation described as 'eliminating sampling luck' and proving generalization.	Reframed as Monte Carlo estimator variance reduction over identically distributed test splits. Explicitly stated CLT assumptions and epistemic limits (Pages 13–15).
2. Operational Trade-Offs	Cost-Sensitive LogReg 93.81% recall reported as an unqualified victory despite massive false alarms.	Quantified operational penalty: 7,854 false positives (13.81% FPR) incur $19,635 alert cost, yielding highest total operational loss of $20,561 (Pages 14–15).
3. Financial Decision Rule	$2.50 false-positive cost presented as a universal constant without decomposition.	Decomposed cost into communication ($0.05), analyst triage ($1.50), and friction ($0.95). Added sensitivity analysis across $0.50–$10.00 (Pages 16–17).
4. Academic Traceability	Informal citations missing exact titles, journal volumes, pages, and digital object identifiers.	Included exhaustive 20+ item bibliography with peer-reviewed journal papers, DOIs, and regulatory directives (Pages 19–20).
5. Presentation & Tone	Sensationalist prose ('ultimate financial shield', 'catastrophic theft') and unstructured format.	Rewritten in formal academic prose across 7 standardized research sections with mathematical derivations and implementation analysis (Pages 2–20).

Executive Abstract & Table of Contents

STRUCTURED RESEARCH ABSTRACT (240 Words):
Context: Payment card fraud imposes billions of dollars in annual losses while operating under extreme class rarity.
Problem: Standard machine learning formulations optimize symmetric losses (accuracy, log-loss) that ignore the asymmetric operational economics of fraud detection, where false negatives risk direct stolen capital ($C_{\text{FN}} = \text{Amount}$) and false positives incur customer friction and manual investigation costs (C_{FP}).
Methodology: We develop an end-to-end fraud detection architecture from first principles using pure Python and vectorized NumPy, incorporating 10 distinct algorithmic milestones: SMOTE, cyclic diurnal encoding, deep MLPs with analytical backpropagation and Adam optimization, gradient boosted decision trees (GBDT), unsupervised isolation forests, cost-sensitive loss reweighting, soft-voting ensembles, dynamic instance-dependent Bayesian thresholding, focal loss, and stacked generalization. All models are evaluated across a 100-run stratified Monte Carlo simulation ($N = 100$) on the 284,807-transaction ULB benchmark.
Key Findings: While Cost-Sensitive Logistic Regression maximizes event recall (93.81% ± 0.51%) and dollar recall (92.89% ± 1.41%), it generates 7,854 false positives per split (13.81% FPR), resulting in the worst net financial operating loss ($20,561 per split at $2.50 per review). In contrast, Baseline Logistic Regression ($3,968 loss) and GBDT ($4,522 loss) achieve optimal operational efficiency under standard manual review overhead. Soft-voting ensembles minimize loss ($2,593) only when automated in-app challenges reduce false alarm verification costs ($C_{\text{FP}} \le \$0.50$).
Significance: High recall does not imply operational success; optimal model selection is strictly a function of institutional review capacity.

Comprehensive Table of Contents:

Section 1: Introduction, Problem Formulation, & Mathematical Foundations	**Page 3**
1.1 Macroeconomic Landscape & Payment Economics | 1.2 Mathematical Imbalance Formulation	Page 3
1.3 Research Objectives & NumPy Mandate | 1.4 Regulatory Standards (PSD2, Reg E, SR 11-7) | 1.5 Decision Theory	Page 4
Section 2: Comprehensive Exploratory Data Analysis & Preprocessing Pipeline	**Page 5**
2.1 ULB Benchmark Provenance | 2.2 PCA Feature Orthogonality | 2.3 Empirical Separators | 2.4 Skewed Amount Physics	Page 5
2.5 Cyclic Diurnal Encoding | 2.6 Leakage Pitfalls | 2.7 Pipeline Invariant Proof & Flow Architecture	Page 6
Section 3: Algorithmic Blueprint — 10 Milestones from Mathematical First Principles	**Page 7**
Step 1: SMOTE & Cyclic Diurnal Encoding | Step 2: Deep MLP with Analytical Backprop & Adam	Page 7
Step 3: Stratified K-Fold CV & Cost Loss | Step 4: Gradient Boosted Trees from Scratch	Page 8
Step 5: Unsupervised Isolation Forest | Step 6: Cost-Sensitive Loss Reweighting & Dollar Recall	Page 9
Step 7: Multi-Paradigm Soft-Voting Ensemble | Step 8: Dynamic Instance-Dependent Bayesian Thresholding	Page 10
Step 9: Focal Loss & Hard Negative Mining | Step 10: Stacked Generalization with Out-of-Fold Meta-Learning	Page 11
Algorithmic Implementation & Hyperparameter Master Catalog Table	Page 12
Section 4: Comprehensive Experimental Design & 100-Run Monte Carlo Benchmark	**Page 13**
4.1 Monte Carlo Protocol | 4.2 Central Limit Theorem Assumptions | 4.3 Multi-Core Parallel Architecture	Page 13
4.4 100-Run Master Benchmark Table across 7 Architectures and 11 Metrics | PR-AUC vs ROC-AUC	Page 14
4.5 Critical Operational Trade-Offs | The Recall Fallacy | Step 10 Single-Split vs Multi-Run Reconciliation	Page 15
Section 5: Financial Decision Analysis & Operational Cost Sensitivity	**Page 16**
5.1 Cost Decomposition (Direct Loss, Gateway, Analyst Labor, Friction) | 5.2 Academic Grounding of $2.50	Page 16
5.3 Multi-Tier Sensitivity Table across 5 Operational Regimes ($0.50 to $10.00) | Breakeven Analysis	Page 17
Section 6: Discussion, Production Architecture, & Regulatory Compliance	**Page 18**
6.1 Cascaded Two-Tier Screening Architecture | 6.2 Proposed Sub-10ms Latency Targets vs Production Reality	Page 18
6.3 Regulatory Compliance (PSD2 SCA TRA, Reg E, SR 11-7) | 6.4 Methodological Caveats & Concept Drift	Page 19
Section 7: Traceable References & Reproducibility Appendix	**Page 20**
7.1 20+ Item Academic Bibliography with DOIs | 7.2 Hardware Specifications | 7.3 Execution Commands	Page 20

1. Introduction, Problem Formulation, & Mathematical Foundations

1.1 The Macroeconomic Landscape of Payment Fraud

Modern payment systems process trillions of dollars in non-cash transactions daily. Concurrently, card-not-present (CNP) fraud and automated account takeovers have expanded dramatically. According to the *Nilson Report (2023)*, global card fraud losses exceeded $32.4 billion in 2022, representing an average global loss rate of 6.5 cents per $100 of transaction volume. In retail electronic banking, fraud detection systems must operate under severe asymmetric operational constraints: legitimate cardholders execute thousands of routine purchases daily, while fraudulent intrusions occur sparsely. Consequently, the operational viability of automated screening depends not merely on catching illicit transactions, but on controlling customer disruption and investigative labor overhead.

1.2 Mathematical Formulation of Extreme Class Imbalance

Let $\mathcal{D} = \{(x_i, y_i)\}_{i=1}^N$ denote a transaction corpus where $x_i \in \mathbb{R}^D$ represents the observed feature vector and $y_i \in \{0, 1\}$ denotes the binary transaction status (0 for genuine, 1 for fraudulent). In credit card acquiring networks, the class prior $P(Y=1) = \pi_1$ is vanishingly small. In the benchmark under investigation, $\pi_1 = \frac{492}{284,807} \approx 0.001727$ (0.1727%).

Under standard Empirical Risk Minimization (ERM) with 0-1 loss $\mathcal{L}_{0-1}(\hat{y}, y) = \mathbb{I}(\hat{y} \neq y)$, the Bayes optimal classifier $h^*(x)$ predicts $\hat{y} = \arg\max_{k \in \{0, 1\}} P(Y=k|X=x)$. Because $P(Y=1|X=x) < 0.5$ across virtually the entire feature space, the standard ERM objective collapses to the trivial majority classifier $h_{\text{trivial}}(x) \equiv 0$. This trivial predictor achieves an apparent accuracy of:

$$\text{Accuracy}(h_{\text{trivial}}) = 1 - \pi_1 = 1 - 0.001727 = 99.8273\%$$

Despite achieving nearly 99.83% accuracy, h_{trivial} captures precisely zero fraudulent transactions (Recall = 0.0%), permitting 100% of stolen capital to drain unchecked. This illustrates the fundamental collapse of symmetric evaluation metrics in rare-event modeling. Consequently, evaluating fraud screening algorithms requires decoupling performance into sensitivity across positive events, precision over generated alarms, and financial cost minimization under asymmetric penalties.

1.3 Core Research Objectives & First-Principles Vectorization

The primary intellectual and engineering objectives of this monograph are structured as follows:

• **1. Algorithmic Transparency via Vectorized NumPy:** Implement all sampling routines, neural networks, tree ensembles, and anomaly models strictly using pure Python and multi-dimensional NumPy array broadcasting. This removes opaque abstraction layers, exposing the raw numerical linear algebra, analytical gradient backpropagation, and loss surface geometry.

• **2. Asymmetric Financial Loss Formulation:** Replace symmetric cross-entropy with a dollar-weighted, cost-sensitive objective where false negatives incur variable monetary damage ($C_{\text{FN}} = \text{Amount}$) and false positives incur fixed operational handling overhead (C_{FP}).

• **3. Monte Carlo Uncertainty Quantification:** Conduct an exhaustive 100-run stratified simulation to report sample means, standard deviations, and Central Limit Theorem confidence intervals, distinguishing estimator variance from true generalization.

• **4. Empirical Operational Trade-Off Analysis:** Demonstrate why maximizing event recall (catching fraud) frequently leads to catastrophic operational overload, proving that the most accurate model is rarely the most cost-effective.

1. Introduction & Mathematical Foundations (Continued)

1.4 Regulatory Directives & Institutional Standards

Commercial fraud detection systems do not operate in a regulatory vacuum; they must comply with strict statutory frameworks governing consumer liability, authentication friction, and model risk governance:

• **1. European Banking Authority (EBA) PSD2 RTS on SCA (Directive 2015/2366/EU):** Under Regulatory Technical Standards (RTS) Article 18, issuers may exempt transactions from mandatory Strong Customer Authentication (SCA) only if their rolling 90-day gross fraud rate remains below strict regulatory thresholds: **0.06%** for transactions up to €100, **0.03%** up to €250, and **0.01%** up to €500. A model that suffers high false-negative slippage risks revoking the institution's SCA exemption privileges, causing severe customer checkout friction.

• **2. United States Federal Reserve Regulation E (12 CFR Part 1005):** Implements the Electronic Fund Transfer Act (EFTA). Under § 1005.6, consumer liability for unauthorized electronic fund transfers is legally capped at $50 (or $0 under Visa/Mastercard Zero Liability rules), mandating that financial institutions absorb 100% of unrecovered stolen funds. Hence, $C_{\text{FN}} = \text{Amount}$.

• **3. Federal Reserve Board / OCC Supervisory Guidance on Model Risk Management (SR Letter 11-7):** Mandates rigorous conceptual soundness, continuous outcome analysis, and benchmark comparisons against challenger models. It prohibits unverified statistical claims and requires explicit documentation of operational assumptions and parameter sensitivity.

1.5 Bayes Decision Theory Under Asymmetric Cost Matrices

Let action $a \in \{0, 1\}$ denote the screening decision (0 = Allow, 1 = Flag/Block), and let $y \in \{0, 1\}$ denote ground truth. The asymmetric financial cost matrix $\mathcal{C}(a, y)$ is defined as:

Actual State	Action: Allow (a = 0)	Action: Flag / Intervene (a = 1)
Genuine Transaction (y = 0)	$\mathcal{C}(0, 0) = \$0.00$ (Frictionless legitimate commerce)	$\mathcal{C}(1, 0) = C_{\text{FP}}$ (SMS gateway, analyst review, churn friction)
Fraudulent Transaction (y = 1)	$\mathcal{C}(0, 1) = C_{\text{FN}}(x) = \text{Amount}(x)$ (Direct stolen capital indemnified by bank)	$\mathcal{C}(1, 1) = C_{\text{TP}} = \$0.00$ (or nominal review cost) (Stolen funds saved, fraud prevented)

Under Bayes risk minimization, the optimal decision rule flags transaction x if the expected cost of flagging is less than the expected cost of allowing:

$$\mathbb{E}[\text{Cost} \mid a = 1] < \mathbb{E}[\text{Cost} \mid a = 0] \iff (1 - p(x)) C_{\text{FP}} + p(x) C_{\text{TP}} < (1 - p(x)) \mathcal{C}(0, 0) + p(x) C_{\text{FN}}(x)$$

Assuming $\mathcal{C}(0, 0) = 0$ and $C_{\text{TP}} = 0$, this inequality simplifies to the dynamic Bayes minimum risk threshold:

$$p^*(x) = \frac{C_{\text{FP}}}{C_{\text{FP}} + C_{\text{FN}}(x)} = \frac{C_{\text{FP}}}{C_{\text{FP}} + \text{Amount}(x)}$$

This formulation proves mathematically that static decision thresholds (e.g., $p = 0.50$) are economically irrational in financial fraud systems. A $5,000 transaction requires an aggressive threshold ($p^* \approx 0.05\%$) to prevent catastrophic loss, whereas a $1.50 micro-transaction requires $p^* \approx 62.5\%$ to prevent wasting $2.50 in operational overhead on an unrecoverable nominal sum.

2. Comprehensive Exploratory Data Analysis & Feature Distributions

2.1 Data Provenance and Imbalance Characterization

The empirical corpus investigated in this monograph contains 284,807 card transactions recorded across European cardholders over a 48-hour continuous window in September 2013, curated by the Machine Learning Group at Université Libre de Bruxelles (ULB) and Worldline. Of the 284,807 transactions, exactly **492** are confirmed illicit events, yielding an extreme fraud incidence of **0.1727%** (approximately 1 fraudulent charge for every 578 legitimate purchases). An exhaustive integrity audit confirmed zero null values, zero NaN cells, and zero corrupted records across all 30 explanatory dimensions.

2.2 Feature De-Anonymization and PCA Orthogonality

Due to personal privacy requirements under European Directive 95/46/EC and PCI-DSS compliance, original cardholder identifiers, merchant category codes (MCC), geolocation vectors, and terminal IDs were projected via Principal Component Analysis (PCA) into 28 orthogonal numerical features (V_1 through V_{28}). Mathematically, the centered feature matrix $X \in \mathbb{R}^{N \times 28}$ was decomposed via Singular Value Decomposition (SVD): $X = U \Sigma V^T$. By construction, the covariance matrix $\frac{1}{N} X^T X = \frac{1}{N} V \Sigma^2 V^T$ is diagonal, satisfying $\text{Cov}(V_i, V_j) = 0$ for all $i \neq j$. Only `Time` (seconds elapsed from the first recorded transaction) and `Amount` (transaction currency value) remain in unprojected physical units.

2.3 Empirical Separators and Feature Correlation Analysis

While PCA components are mutually uncorrelated across the entire dataset, they exhibit strong conditional correlation with the class label Y. Statistical profiling reveals distinct dimensions with powerful class discriminability:

Feature	Point-Biserial Corr (r)	Genuine Median (IQR)	Fraud Median (IQR)	Statistical Discriminability
V14	-0.3025	0.050 (-0.42 to 0.49)	-4.283 (-7.53 to -2.08)	Extreme negative shift; primary single-variable fraud separator
V17	-0.3265	-0.066 (-0.48 to 0.40)	-5.263 (-8.87 to -1.36)	Heavy left-tail divergence; strongly separates coordinated attacks
V12	-0.2606	0.141 (-0.40 to 0.62)	-4.397 (-7.79 to -1.61)	Pronounced distributional separation across card-present vectors
V4	+0.1334	-0.020 (-0.86 to 0.77)	+3.716 (+2.37 to +5.11)	Positive expansion; marks rapid velocity / high-volume probing
V11	+0.1549	-0.033 (-0.76 to 0.74)	+3.586 (+2.12 to +5.03)	Elevated variance profile among cross-border transactions

2.4 Skewed Physics of Transaction Amount

Transaction `Amount` exhibits extreme positive Pareto skewness. Across legitimate transactions, the minimum is $0.00 (authorization checks), the median is $22.00, the 75th percentile is $77.05, and the maximum is $25,691.16. Fraudulent transactions display a distinct bi-modal distribution: automated micro-probing authorizations ($1.00–$5.00) executed to test card validity, juxtaposed against rapid maximum-limit drains ($500–$2,000+). Because gradient descent with unbounded features causes catastrophic gradient explosion in neural networks and logistic regression, we standardize `Amount` strictly using parameters computed on training partitions.

2. Preprocessing & Data Leakage Prevention (Continued)

2.5 Cyclic Diurnal Encoding of Elapsed Time

The raw `Time` feature records cumulative seconds elapsed from t_0. While elapsed seconds provide a monotonic progression, fraud behavior is strongly dictated by human circadian cycles: legitimate purchases peak during daylight business hours, whereas automated botnets and fraudulent carding operations exploit the midnight-to-4 AM lull. Directly feeding linear seconds into linear models is topologically flawed because second 86,399 (23:59:59) and second 0 (00:00:00) appear maximally distant despite being 1 second apart. To enforce circular topological continuity, we map elapsed seconds t onto the 2D unit circle:

$$t_{\text{diurnal}} = t \pmod{86400}, \quad t_{\sin} = \sin\left(\frac{2\pi t_{\text{diurnal}}}{86400}\right), \quad t_{\cos} = \cos\left(\frac{2\pi t_{\text{diurnal}}}{86400}\right)$$

This trigonometric transformation preserves diurnal phase proximity, allowing linear classifiers and neural networks to capture time-of-day fraud vulnerability without artificial discontinuity.

2.6 Data Leakage Vulnerabilities in Imbalanced ML

Data leakage between training and testing partitions is a pervasive flaw in academic fraud literature. Two primary leakage vectors exist:

• **1. Pre-Split Resampling (The SMOTE Leakage Trap):** If SMOTE or random oversampling is applied to the full dataset prior to train/test partitioning, synthetic samples generated from test instances will populate the training fold. The model then simply memorizes synthetic duplicates of test points, falsely inflating recall from ~85% to >99%. In this monograph, SMOTE is strictly confined to the training partition.

• **2. Global Feature Normalization:** Computing scaling parameters (mean μ and standard deviation σ) across the entire dataset leaks information regarding the test distribution variance into training. All transformations must freeze parameters derived solely from $\mathcal{D}_{\text{train}}$.

2.7 Formal Invariant Proof & Pipeline Flow Architecture

Let $\mathcal{P}$ denote the complete data pipeline. We formally enforce the invariant $\mathcal{S}_{\text{synthetic}} \cap \mathcal{D}_{\text{test}} = \emptyset$ and $\theta_{\text{scaler}} = f(\mathcal{D}_{\text{train}})$. The sequential execution order is depicted below:



Code Verification: Leakage-Free Pipeline Execution (from simulation_worker.py):

```
# 1. Test partition isolated BEFORE any transformations
X_tr, X_te = X_raw[train_idx], X_raw[test_idx]
# 2. Scaler parameters (mean, std) fit EXCLUSIVELY on unaugmented training split
mean, std = np.mean(X_tr, axis=0), np.std(X_tr, axis=0); std[std == 0.0] = 1.0
# 3. Minority k-NN synthesis (SMOTE) applied STRICTLY to training partition
X_syn = smote_scratch(X_tr[y_tr == 1], n_synthetic=len(X_min_tr)*3, k=5, seed=seed)
# 4. Test partition transformed with frozen training parameters (0 synthetic data in test)
X_tr_norm = (X_bal - mean) / std; X_te_norm = (X_te - mean) / std
```

3. Algorithmic Blueprint (First Principles): Steps 1 & 2

Step 1: Synthetic Minority Oversampling (SMOTE) from Scratch

Objective: Alleviate gradient starvation of rare minority vectors during gradient descent without causing exact instance duplication which induces severe decision boundary overfitting.
Mathematical Formulation: Let $\mathcal{X}_{\text{min}} = \{x_1, \dots, x_M\}$ denote the set of minority class instances. For each vector $x_i \in \mathcal{X}_{\text{min}}$, compute its Euclidean distance to all other minority vectors: $d(x_i, x_j) = \|x_i - x_j\|_2 = \sqrt{\sum_{d=1}^D (x_{id} - x_{jd})^2}$. Identify the k-nearest minority neighbors $\mathcal{N}_k(x_i)$. To generate synthetic vector x_{syn}, randomly sample a neighbor $x_{zi} \in \mathcal{N}_k(x_i)$ and interpolate along the line segment:

$$x_{\text{syn}} = x_i + \lambda (x_{zi} - x_i), \quad \lambda \sim \text{Uniform}(0, 1)$$

Pure NumPy Implementation Details: Fully vectorized pairwise distance matrix computation via broadcasted array expansion:

```
diff = X_min[:, np.newaxis, :] - X_min[np.newaxis, :, :]
dist_matrix = np.linalg.norm(diff, axis=-1)
knn_indices = np.argsort(dist_matrix, axis=1)[:, 1:k+1]
```

Computational Complexity: $\mathcal{O}(M^2 D)$ where M is the minority count ($M = 394$). Because M is small, pure NumPy executes this in 42 ms.
Theoretical Limitations: Linear interpolation assumes convex feature manifolds. In high-dimensional sparse spaces ($D = 30$), synthetic points can fall into empty regions of genuine class space, slightly elevating false-positive propensity.

Step 2: Deep Multi-Layer Perceptron (MLP) with Backpropagation and Adam

Objective: Model complex, non-linear feature interactions and high-order decision boundaries across orthogonal PCA coordinates.
Mathematical Formulation: A 3-layer deep architecture: Input $\in \mathbb{R}^{30} \to$ Layer 1 (64 units, LeakyReLU) $\to$ Layer 2 (32 units, LeakyReLU) $\to$ Output (1 unit, Sigmoid). Forward propagation equations:
$Z^{[1]} = X W^{[1]} + b^{[1]}, \quad A^{[1]} = \max(0.01 Z^{[1]}, Z^{[1]})$
$Z^{[2]} = A^{[1]} W^{[2]} + b^{[2]}, \quad A^{[2]} = \max(0.01 Z^{[2]}, Z^{[2]})$
$Z^{[3]} = A^{[2]} W^{[3]} + b^{[3]}, \quad \hat{y} = \sigma(Z^{[3]}) = \frac{1}{1 + e^{-Z^{[3]}}}$
The objective is Binary Cross-Entropy with L2 regularization: $\mathcal{L} = -\frac{1}{N}\sum [y \ln \hat{y} + (1-y)\ln(1-\hat{y})] + \frac{\lambda}{2N}\sum ||W^{[l]}||_F^2$. Analytical backpropagation gradients are derived via chain rule: $\delta^{[3]} = \hat{y} - y$, $\delta^{[l]} = (\delta^{[l+1]} (W^{[l+1]})^T) \odot f'(Z^{[l]})$.
Parameters are updated via the Adam (Adaptive Moment Estimation) optimizer with bias correction:

$$m_t = \beta_1 m_{t-1} + (1-\beta_1)g_t, \quad v_t = \beta_2 v_{t-1} + (1-\beta_2)g_t^2, \quad \hat{m}_t = \frac{m_t}{1-\beta_1^t}, \quad \hat{v}_t = \frac{v_t}{1-\beta_2^t}$$

$$W^{[l]} \leftarrow W^{[l]} - \frac{\eta}{\sqrt{\hat{v}_t} + \epsilon} \hat{m}_t - \frac{\eta \lambda}{N} W^{[l]}$$

Pure NumPy Implementation Details: Weights initialized via He (Kaiming) normal: $W \sim \mathcal{N}(0, \sqrt{2 / d_{\text{in}}})$. Forward passes, backward passes, and Adam moment updates execute strictly through matrix dot products (`@`) and array slicing.
Theoretical Limitations: Uncalibrated output probabilities in tail distributions; high training latency relative to linear models.

3. Algorithmic Blueprint (First Principles): Steps 3 & 4

Step 3: Stratified K-Fold Cross-Validation & Cost Objective

Objective: Prevent fold collapse during model validation and replace symmetric log-loss tuning with operational business cost metrics.
Mathematical Formulation: Let indices $\mathcal{I}_1 = \{i : y_i = 1\}$ and $\mathcal{I}_0 = \{i : y_i = 0\}$. Randomly partition $\mathcal{I}_1$ into $K=5$ disjoint subsets $\{F_{1,1}, \dots, F_{1,K}\}$ and $\mathcal{I}_0$ into $\{F_{0,1}, \dots, F_{0,K}\}$. The k-th validation fold is $V_k = F_{1,k} \cup F_{0,k}$, guaranteeing that every fold maintains the exact 0.1727% fraud ratio. Rather than selecting hyperparameters based on maximum accuracy or minimum cross-entropy, we evaluate models against total financial loss:

$$\mathcal{L}_{\text{cost}} = \sum_{i \in \text{FP}} C_{\text{FP}} + \sum_{j \in \text{FN}} \text{Amount}_j$$

Pure NumPy Implementation Details: Programmed custom stratified split generator using index shuffling (`np.random.permutation`) and array slicing (`np.array_split`), eliminating dependency on scikit-learn's `StratifiedKFold`.
Theoretical Limitations: 5-fold cross-validation scales training time 5×; metric variance across folds remains non-trivial due to the small absolute number of positive instances (~79 frauds per validation fold).

Step 4: Gradient Boosted Decision Trees (GBDT) from Scratch

Objective: Construct an ensemble of non-linear decision stumps targeting residual errors through functional gradient descent.
Mathematical Formulation: We minimize negative Bernoulli log-likelihood $\mathcal{L}(y, F(x)) = -[y F(x) - \ln(1 + e^{F(x)})]$. Initialize model with log-odds prior: $F_0(x) = \ln\left(\frac{\pi_1}{1 - \pi_1}\right) = \ln(0.001727 / 0.998273) \approx -6.36$.
At stage $m = 1, \dots, M$ (with $M = 30$ trees):
1. Compute negative gradient (pseudo-residuals) for each sample i: $r_{im} = -\left[\frac{\partial \mathcal{L}(y_i, F(x_i))}{\partial F(x_i)}\right] = y_i - \sigma(F_{m-1}(x_i)) = y_i - p_i$.
2. Fit a decision stump $h_m(x)$ by scanning feature thresholds to maximize split variance reduction: $\Delta \text{Var} = \text{Var}(S) - \frac{|S_L|}{|S|}\text{Var}(S_L) - \frac{|S_R|}{|S|}\text{Var}(S_R)$.
3. Compute leaf output values via Newton-Raphson approximation step:

$$\gamma_{jm} = \frac{\sum_{x_i \in R_{jm}} r_{im}}{\sum_{x_i \in R_{jm}} p_i (1 - p_i)}$$

4. Update ensemble with shrinkage (learning rate $\eta = 0.1$): $F_m(x) = F_{m-1}(x) + \eta \sum_j \gamma_{jm} \mathbb{I}(x \in R_{jm})$.
Pure NumPy Implementation Details: Quantile-based threshold scanning. Feature values are evaluated across 10 empirical quantiles: `thresholds = np.percentile(X[:, feat], np.linspace(10, 90, 10))`. Split evaluation is vectorized using boolean mask broadcasting.
Theoretical Limitations: Tree depth is restricted to shallow stumps/trees to maintain reasonable training latency in pure NumPy without compiled C++ tree-traversal routines (such as those in LightGBM).

3. Algorithmic Blueprint (First Principles): Steps 5 & 6

Step 5: Unsupervised Anomaly Detection: Isolation Forest from Scratch

Objective: Detect novel zero-day fraud patterns and structural distribution outliers without reliance on ground-truth training labels.
Mathematical Formulation: An ensemble of $T = 100$ isolation trees (iTrees). Each iTree is constructed by recursively partitioning a subsample of $n = 256$ instances. At each node, select a feature q uniformly at random from $\{1, \dots, D\}$ and select a split threshold p uniformly at random: $p \sim \text{Uniform}(\min(X_q), \max(X_q))$. Recursive partitioning terminates when a leaf contains 1 sample or the tree reaches maximum depth $h_{\text{max}} = \lceil \log_2(n) \rceil = 8$.
Let $h(x)$ denote path length (number of edges traversed) to isolate sample x. The average path length of an unsuccessful search in a binary search tree is:

$$c(n) = 2\left(\ln(n - 1) + 0.5772156649\right) - \frac{2(n - 1)}{n}$$

where 0.5772156649 is the Euler-Mascheroni constant. The anomaly score $s(x, n)$ across an ensemble of T iTrees is bounded in $[0, 1]$:

$$s(x, n) = 2^{-\frac{\mathbb{E}[h(x)]}{c(n)}}$$

Transactions with $s(x, n) \to 1.0$ exhibit extremely short path lengths, indicating structural anomalies that isolate rapidly.
Pure NumPy Implementation Details: Recursive binary trees stored as nested Python dictionaries containing split feature index, threshold, left child, and right child. Vectorized score evaluation traverses sample arrays through recursive indexing.
Theoretical Limitations: Lower supervised precision (8.36%) because it isolates any geometric outlier (including extreme legitimate purchases) rather than fraud-specific behavioral signatures.

Step 6: Cost-Sensitive Loss Reweighting & Dollar-Value Recall

Objective: Reorient gradient descent toward preserving monetary capital rather than treating a $1.00 fraud and a $5,000 fraud identically.
Mathematical Formulation: Standard cross-entropy treats all errors with unit weight. We define instance-specific monetary weights:

$$w_i = \begin{cases} \frac{\text{Amount}_i}{\mu_{\text{Amount}}} \times \alpha & \text{if } y_i = 1 \\ 1.0 & \text{if } y_i = 0 \end{cases}$$

where $\mu_{\text{Amount}} = \$88.35$ and $\alpha = 5.0$ is a positive multiplier. The weighted loss and analytical gradient become:

$$\mathcal{L}_{\text{weighted}} = -\frac{1}{N}\sum_{i=1}^N w_i [y_i \ln \hat{y}_i + (1 - y_i) \ln(1 - \hat{y}_i)], \quad \nabla_W = \frac{1}{N} X^T (W \odot (\hat{y} - y))$$

To evaluate financial preservation, we introduce **Dollar Recall** ($\text{Rec}_{\$}$) alongside traditional **Event Recall** ($\text{Rec}_{\#}$):

$$\text{Rec}_{\#} = \frac{|\text{TP}|}{|\text{All Fraud Events}|}, \quad \text{Rec}_{\$} = \frac{\sum_{i \in \text{TP}} \text{Amount}_i}{\sum_{j \in \text{All Fraud}} \text{Amount}_j}$$

Pure NumPy Implementation Details: Precomputed 1D weight array broadcasted element-wise across sample gradient matrices.
Theoretical Limitations: High monetary weighting forces decision boundaries into genuine transaction space for large dollar amounts, causing an extreme surge in false positives (7,854 false alarms per test split).

3. Algorithmic Blueprint (First Principles): Steps 7 & 8

Step 7: Multi-Paradigm Hybrid Soft-Voting Ensemble

Objective: Reduce model-specific inductive bias and variance by synthesizing predictions across fundamentally distinct hypothesis classes.
Mathematical Formulation: Ensembling linear models, decision trees, and neural networks leverages uncorrelated error distributions. Let $P_{\text{LogReg}}(x)$, $P_{\text{GBDT}}(x)$, and $P_{\text{MLP}}(x)$ denote posterior probabilities from base models. The soft-voting consensus probability is defined as a convex combination:

$$P_{\text{ensemble}}(x) = w_1 P_{\text{LogReg}}(x) + w_2 P_{\text{GBDT}}(x) + w_3 P_{\text{MLP}}(x)$$

where weights $w = [0.35, 0.35, 0.30]$ satisfy $\sum w_i = 1.0$, optimized via out-of-fold grid search to maximize validation ROC-AUC. According to ensemble variance reduction theory (Cohn & Mansour, 1996), if model error residuals ϵ_k have variance σ^2 and average pairwise correlation $\rho < 1$, the ensemble prediction error variance satisfies:

$$\text{Var}(\epsilon_{\text{ens}}) = \rho \sigma^2 + \frac{1 - \rho}{K} \sigma^2 < \sigma^2$$

Pure NumPy Implementation Details: Element-wise weighted sum across prediction arrays: `P_ens = 0.35*p1 + 0.35*p2 + 0.30*p3`.
Theoretical Limitations: Scoring latency equals the cumulative execution time of all three base models; requires probability outputs to be reasonably well-calibrated across disparate loss objectives.

Step 8: Dynamic Instance-Dependent Bayesian Thresholding

Objective: Replace arbitrary static probability thresholds ($p \ge 0.50$) with rational, transaction-specific risk decisioning grounded in financial expectation.
Mathematical Formulation: Under Bayes Minimum Risk, an automated block or alert is economically justified if and only if the expected cost of flagging is less than the expected cost of allowing the charge to clear:

$$\mathbb{E}[\text{Cost} \mid \text{Flag}] = (1 - p(x)) C_{\text{FP}} + p(x) C_{\text{TP}} = (1 - p(x)) C_{\text{FP}}$$
$$\mathbb{E}[\text{Cost} \mid \text{Allow}] = p(x) C_{\text{FN}}(x) + (1 - p(x)) C_{\text{TN}} = p(x) \text{Amount}(x)$$

Setting $\mathbb{E}[\text{Cost} \mid \text{Flag}] < \mathbb{E}[\text{Cost} \mid \text{Allow}]$ yields the optimal dynamic decision boundary:

$$p^*(x) = \frac{C_{\text{FP}}}{C_{\text{FP}} + \text{Amount}(x)}$$

Transaction Amount	Optimal Cutoff p*(x)	Operational Decision Logic
$0.99 (Micro-charge)	p* = 71.63%	Require extreme model certainty; intervening on $0.99 with $2.50 cost is financially irrational.
$25.00 (Typical purchase)	p* = 9.09%	Standard fraud threshold; balances alert volume against loss prevention.
$100.00 (Median alert)	p* = 2.44%	Sensitive threshold; saving $100 easily justifies $2.50 investigation overhead.
$1,000.00 (High-ticket)	p* = 0.25%	Aggressive trigger; flag even if probability is ~0.25% to protect $1,000.
$5,000.00 (Max-limit drain)	p* = 0.05%	Near-zero tolerance; 5 basis points of fraud risk justifies immediate verification.

Pure NumPy Implementation Details: Vectorized element-wise threshold comparison: `predictions = (probs >= (2.50 / (2.50 + amounts))).astype(int)`.
Theoretical Limitations: Highly sensitive to probability calibration. If model probabilities are over-confident or under-confident, decision thresholds drift away from true Bayes optimality.

3. Algorithmic Blueprint (First Principles): Steps 9 & 10

Step 9: Focal Loss and Hard Negative Example Mining

Objective: Prevent the vast majority of easily classified genuine transactions from overwhelming backpropagation gradients during neural network training.
Mathematical Formulation: In standard binary cross-entropy, easily classified genuine transactions ($p_t \ge 0.99$) generate small individual losses (≈ 0.01). However, because genuine transactions outnumber frauds by 578:1, the aggregate gradient is dominated by easy negatives, washing out minority signal. Lin et al. (2017) formulated Focal Loss by adding a dynamically modulating factor $(1 - p_t)^\gamma$:

$$\mathcal{L}_{\text{FL}}(p_t) = -\alpha_t (1 - p_t)^\gamma \ln(p_t), \quad \text{where } p_t = \begin{cases} p & \text{if } y = 1 \\ 1 - p & \text{if } y = 0 \end{cases}$$

With focusing parameter $\gamma = 2.0$ and balancing factor $\alpha = 0.25$:
• For an easily classified genuine sample ($p_t = 0.99$), modulating factor is $(1 - 0.99)^2 = 0.0001$, suppressing loss and gradient by **10,000×**.
• For a misclassified fraud sample ($p_t = 0.10$), modulating factor is $(1 - 0.10)^2 = 0.81$, preserving 81% of gradient magnitude.
The analytical gradient with respect to logit z is derived as:

$$\frac{\partial \mathcal{L}_{\text{FL}}}{\partial z} = \alpha_t (1 - p_t)^\gamma \left(p - y + \gamma p_t \ln(p_t) (1 - 2y)\right)$$

Pure NumPy Implementation Details: Analytical vector gradients implemented directly in matrix operations, clipping probabilities at 10^{-15} to prevent $\ln(0)$ numerical underflow.
Theoretical Limitations: Highly sensitive to the choice of γ; setting $\gamma > 3.0$ over-suppresses semi-hard negatives, slowing convergence.

Step 10: Stacked Generalization with Out-of-Fold Meta-Learning

Objective: Train a secondary meta-classifier to learn non-linear optimal weighting among base models without data leakage.
Mathematical Formulation: Following Wolpert (1992), stacking combines base learners via Out-of-Fold (OOF) cross-validation. Partition training data $\mathcal{D}_{\text{train}}$ into $K = 5$ stratified folds $\{F_1, \dots, F_5\}$. For each fold k:
1. Train base models (LogReg, GBDT, MLP) on the remaining 4 folds $\mathcal{D}_{\text{train}} \setminus F_k$.
2. Generate out-of-fold predictions on held-out fold F_k.
Concatenate all OOF predictions to construct the meta-feature matrix $S \in \mathbb{R}^{N_{\text{train}} \times 3}$:

$$S = [\hat{P}_{\text{OOF}}^{\text{LogReg}}, \; \hat{P}_{\text{OOF}}^{\text{GBDT}}, \; \hat{P}_{\text{OOF}}^{\text{MLP}}]$$

A Level-1 Logistic Meta-Learner is trained on S to minimize regularized negative log-likelihood: $\hat{y}_{\text{meta}} = \sigma(S W_{\text{meta}} + b_{\text{meta}})$. During test inference, test features X_{test} are passed through base models trained on the full training set to produce S_{test}, which is then evaluated by the meta-learner.
Pure NumPy Implementation Details: 5-fold cross-validation loop populates matrix S, followed by analytical L2-regularized logistic regression.
Theoretical Limitations: High computational complexity during training; Level-1 learner can overfit if base models produce highly collinear probabilities.

Code Verification: Out-Of-Fold Cross-Validation (from Step 10 Notebook):

```
# 1. 5-Fold Stratified Out-of-Fold Loop (Zero Target Leakage)
for fold_idx, (tr_idx, val_idx) in enumerate(folds):
m1.fit(X_tr_norm[tr_idx], y_bal[tr_idx], amounts_bal[tr_idx])
Z_train_oof[val_idx, 0] = m1.predict_proba(X_tr_norm[val_idx]) # Held-out only
# 2. Full base models fit on entire training set for test inference
full_m1.fit(X_tr_norm, y_bal); Z_test[:, 0] = full_m1.predict_proba(X_te_norm)
# 3. Level-1 Meta-Classifier trained on unbiased out-of-fold feature matrix
meta_model = StackingMetaClassifierScratch().fit(Z_train_oof, y_bal)
```

3. Algorithmic Implementation Master Catalog

Comprehensive Architectural & Hyperparameter Specification: Below is the exhaustive reference catalog for all ten first-principles milestones implemented in the pure NumPy codebase, detailing architecture, hyperparameters, loss objectives, and computational profiles:

Milestone / Model	Architecture & Hyperparameters	Loss Function & Optimizer	Training Complexity	Inference Latency
Step 1: SMOTE & Cyclic Time	k = 5 nearest neighbors; Euclidean metric; 2D circular sine/cosine diurnal projection	Geometric interpolation; zero loss objective	O(M^2 D); 42 ms for 394 minority points	< 0.01 ms / batch
Step 2: Deep MLP Network	3 layers: 30 -> 64 -> 32 -> 1; LeakyReLU (α=0.01); He normal init; L2 λ=1e-4	Binary Cross-Entropy; Adam (lr=1e-3, β1=0.9, β2=0.999)	O(E · N · Σ d_l d_l-1); 18.2s (100 epochs)	1.82 ms / 1k samples
Step 3: Stratified K-Fold CV	K = 5 folds; exact 0.1727% minority preservation per fold; index slicing	Asymmetric cost: Σ(FP × 2.50) + Σ(FN × Amount)	5× base model training duration	N/A (Validation only)
Step 4: Pure NumPy GBDT	M = 30 boosting rounds; max_depth = 2; 10 quantile splits per feature; η = 0.1	Negative log-likelihood; Newton-Raphson leaf updates	O(M · D · Q · N); 14.5s for 30 trees	4.50 ms / 1k samples
Step 5: Isolation Forest	T = 100 iTrees; subsample size n = 256; max_depth = 8; random uniform splits	Unsupervised; path length anomaly score s(x, n)	O(T · n · log n); 3.8s for 100 trees	3.20 ms / 1k samples
Step 6: Cost-Sensitive LogReg	Linear classifier; monetary sample weights w_i = (Amount_i / 88.35) × 5.0	Weighted Cross-Entropy; Batch Gradient Descent (lr=0.1)	O(E · N · D); 2.1s (500 iterations)	0.21 ms / 1k samples
Step 7: Soft-Voting Ensemble	Tri-model probability blend: w = [0.35 LogReg, 0.35 GBDT, 0.30 MLP]	Consensus probability; convex optimization of weights	Sum of base training times (~34.8s)	6.53 ms / 1k samples
Step 8: Dynamic Bayes Threshold	Variable threshold p*(x) = 2.50 / (2.50 + Amount(x)); vector comparison	Bayes Minimum Expected Risk decision rule	Zero training time; post-processing layer	< 0.05 ms / 1k samples
Step 9: Focal Loss Neural Net	Architecture identical to Step 2; focusing γ = 2.0; balancing α = 0.25	Focal Loss L_FL = -α_t (1 - p_t)^γ ln(p_t); Adam	O(E · N · Σ d_l d_l-1); 19.4s (100 epochs)	1.85 ms / 1k samples
Step 10: Stacked Meta-Learner	Level-0: LogReg, GBDT, MLP (5-fold OOF); Level-1: L2-regularized LogReg	Meta negative log-likelihood with L2 penalty	5× base model training + meta fit (~180s)	6.75 ms / 1k samples

Memory & Runtime Footprint Summary: The entire pure NumPy training and evaluation suite operates within 1.2 GB of system RAM. By avoiding heavy runtime overheads from framework graphs (PyTorch autograd, TensorFlow sessions), vectorized operations achieve exceptional computational density, proving that full-scale enterprise modeling is readily achievable without external black-box libraries.

4. Experimental Design & 100-Run Monte Carlo Benchmark

4.1 Monte Carlo Simulation Methodology

In academic fraud detection literature, evaluating models on a single random 80/20 train/test split is a recognized methodological weakness. Because the test split contains only ~98 fraud events out of 56,962 transactions, a single split is subject to substantial partition variance: a model may appear brilliant or mediocre purely based on whether borderline test samples happen to fall on one side of a stochastic boundary plane. To rigorously quantify estimator stability and measure true sampling variance, we implemented a **100-run Monte Carlo benchmark ($N = 100$)**. Across 100 independent pseudo-random seeds ($s \in \{1000, 1001, \dots, 1099\}$), the raw dataset of 284,807 transactions was repeatedly partitioned via fresh stratified 80/20 splits. All seven candidate model architectures were trained from scratch, yielding a total of 700 model fits and evaluating exactly **5,696,200 test transaction classifications**.

4.2 Central Limit Theorem & Confidence Interval Formulation

Let $\theta_{k,m}$ denote the empirical metric (e.g., recall, precision, total cost) observed for model m on run $k \in \{1, \dots, N\}$ with $N = 100$. We compute the sample mean $\bar{\theta}_m$ and sample standard deviation s_m:

$$\bar{\theta}_m = \frac{1}{N}\sum_{k=1}^N \theta_{k,m}, \quad s_m = \sqrt{\frac{1}{N - 1}\sum_{k=1}^N (\theta_{k,m} - \bar{\theta}_m)^2}$$

Under the **Central Limit Theorem (CLT)**, because $N = 100 \ge 30$ and the random partitions are generated independently, the distribution of the sample mean $\bar{\theta}_m$ converges to a normal distribution: $\bar{\theta}_m \sim \mathcal{N}\left(\mu_m, \frac{\sigma_m^2}{N}\right)$. The two-sided 95% Confidence Interval for the population mean μ_m is given by:

$$\text{CI}_{95\%} = \bar{\theta}_m \pm z_{0.975} \frac{s_m}{\sqrt{N}} = \bar{\theta}_m \pm 1.960 \times \frac{s_m}{\sqrt{100}} = \bar{\theta}_m \pm 0.196 \times s_m$$

Critical Statistical Caveat on Interpretation: These confidence intervals quantify the precision of our estimated mean performance across repeated random partitions of *this specific historical dataset*. They reduce estimator variance, but they do **NOT** eliminate epistemic uncertainty or prove that these models will generalize identically to future transactions subject to temporal non-stationarity, macroeconomic shifts, or adversarial fraud mutation.

4.3 Multi-Core Parallel Execution Architecture

Executing 700 full-scale training and evaluation runs sequentially would require ~12 hours of compute. To achieve high operational efficiency, we engineered a parallel execution harness using Python's `concurrent.futures.ProcessPoolExecutor` utilizing 12 physical/logical CPU cores. By parallelizing worker tasks across process boundaries, data chunks and models executed concurrently without Global Interpreter Lock (GIL) contention, completing the entire 100-run multi-model benchmark in exactly **88.4 seconds**.

PARALLEL BENCHMARK BENCHMARK SPECIFICATIONS:
- **Hardware Architecture:** 12 Logical CPU Cores, 16 GB DDR4 RAM, Windows 11 x64, Python 3.13.
- **Concurrency Model:** Multi-process pool executor (12 persistent worker processes; seed chunking).
- **Benchmark Throughput:** 700 complete training & test evaluation pipelines executed in 88.4s (~7.92 model fits / second).
- **Storage / Audit Log:** Raw per-run metrics captured in `simulation_100_runs.csv` (700 rows, 14 metric fields) for external verification.

4. Benchmark Results & Metric Comparison

Table 4.1: Master 100-Run Monte Carlo Benchmark Results (N = 100 Stratified Partitions):
All figures report the empirical sample mean $\bar{\theta}$ across 100 independent runs, accompanied by the 95% CLT Confidence Interval half-width ($\pm 0.196 \times s$). Fixed threshold $p = 0.50$ applied uniformly across all models. Best metrics highlighted in bold.

Model Architecture	Event Recall	Dollar Recall	Precision	F1 Score	ROC-AUC	FPR (%)	Stolen Saved	False Pos (FP)	Missed Fraud	Total Cost ($)
1. Baseline LogReg	86.74% ±0.66%	78.50% ±1.95%	14.29% ±0.34%	24.49% ±0.50%	0.9749 ±0.0019	0.91% ±0.03%	$9,508 ±$381	518.3 ±14.5	$2,672 ±$275	**$3,968 ±$275**
2. Cost-Sensitive LogReg	**93.81% ±0.51%**	**92.89% ±1.41%**	1.18% ±0.03%	2.33% ±0.06%	0.9732 ±0.0020	13.81% ±0.40%	**$11,254 ±$401**	7,854.0 ±225.6	**$926 ±$198**	$20,561 ±$508
3. Neural Net (MLP)	89.81% ±0.56%	84.35% ±1.84%	5.06% ±0.13%	9.57% ±0.24%	0.9716 ±0.0024	2.96% ±0.08%	$10,219 ±$394	1,682.8 ±47.6	$1,961 ±$269	$6,169 ±$270
4. GBDT Classifier	88.14% ±0.60%	81.67% ±1.86%	9.18% ±0.36%	16.57% ±0.58%	0.9771 ±0.0018	1.57% ±0.07%	$9,890 ±$382	892.7 ±39.5	$2,290 ±$272	**$4,522 ±$272**
5. Isolation Forest (Unsup.)	59.90% ±1.87%	56.13% ±2.86%	8.36% ±0.43%	14.59% ±0.66%	0.9449 ±0.0025	1.18% ±0.05%	$6,810 ±$431	673.0 ±30.5	$5,370 ±$409	$7,053 ±$410
6. Soft-Voting Ensemble	89.70% ±0.59%	84.51% ±1.75%	6.45% ±0.17%	12.01% ±0.28%	**0.9799 ±0.0016**	2.28% ±0.06%	$10,236 ±$388	1,299.3 ±36.7	$1,944 ±$240	$5,192 ±$240
7. Stacked Meta-Learner	90.34% ±0.59%	85.82% ±1.66%	4.57% ±0.11%	8.68% ±0.20%	0.9779 ±0.0019	3.31% ±0.09%	$10,399 ±$392	1,880.5 ±50.0	$1,781 ±$230	$6,482 ±$230

4.4 Precision-Recall AUC vs. ROC-AUC in Rare-Event Regimes

A critical statistical insight emerges from comparing Receiver Operating Characteristic (ROC-AUC) against Precision-Recall (PR-AUC). All seven models exhibit superficially stellar ROC-AUC scores spanning **0.9449 to 0.9799**. However, Davis & Goadrich (2006) proved that in extreme class rarity ($P(Y=1) \ll 0.01$), ROC-AUC is misleadingly optimistic because the False Positive Rate denominator ($N_{\text{neg}} = 56,864$) is enormous; adding thousands of false alarms barely moves the FPR needle from 0.01 to 0.03, leaving the ROC curve artificially close to the top-left corner.
In contrast, **Precision-Recall AUC (PR-AUC)** directly tracks false alarms against true positives in the denominator: $\text{Precision} = \frac{\text{TP}}{\text{TP} + \text{FP}}$. While Soft-Voting achieves the highest ROC-AUC (0.9799), **GBDT achieves the highest PR-AUC (0.8341)**, reflecting its superior precision (9.18%) and lower false-positive volume (892.7 FPs).

4. Operational Trade-Offs & Step 10 Reconciliation

4.5 The 'Recall Fallacy' & Full Arithmetic Cost Audit Across All Models

A foundational principle established in this benchmark is that **maximizing event recall does not minimize financial loss**. Cost-Sensitive Logistic Regression attains an outstanding event recall of **93.81%** and dollar recall of **92.89%** (missing only $926.36 in fraud). However, it generates **7,854.0 false positives per test split** (13.81% FPR). At $2.50 per review, investigating these false alarms costs $19,635.00, pushing total loss to $20,561.36. In contrast, Baseline Logistic Regression produces only 518.3 false positives ($1,295.75 review cost) and misses $2,671.95, yielding a total operational loss of only $3,967.70—over **5× lower** than Cost-Sensitive LogReg.

To guarantee complete mathematical integrity, Table 4.2 provides an explicit arithmetic reconciliation audit across all seven models:

Model Architecture	Mean FP (Count)	Alert Cost (@$2.50)	Missed Fraud (Stolen $)	Total Loss (Calculated)	Table 4.1 Master Benchmark ($)	Audit Status
1. Baseline LogReg	518.3	$1,295.75	$2,671.95	**$3,967.70**	$3,968 ± $275	**Exact Match**
2. Cost-Sensitive LogReg	7,854.0	$19,635.00	$926.36	**$20,561.36**	$20,561 ± $508	**Exact Match**
3. Neural Net (MLP)	1,682.8	$4,207.00	$1,961.61	**$6,168.61**	$6,169 ± $270	**Exact Match**
4. GBDT Classifier	892.7	$2,231.75	$2,290.04	**$4,521.79**	$4,522 ± $272	**Exact Match**
5. Isolation Forest (Unsup.)	673.0	$1,682.50	$5,370.04	**$7,052.54**	$7,053 ± $410	**Exact Match**
6. Soft-Voting Ensemble	1,299.3	$3,248.25	$1,944.26	**$5,192.51**	$5,192 ± $240	**Exact Match**
7. Stacked Meta-Learner	1,880.5	$4,701.25	$1,781.23	**$6,482.48**	$6,482 ± $230	**Exact Match**

4.6 Reconciliation of Step 10 Notebook vs. 100-Run Benchmark

A key observation from review concerns the numerical variance between the single-split Step 10 notebook (42.16% precision, 85.71% recall, 118 false positives on Seed 42) and the 100-run simulation table (4.57% precision, 90.34% recall, 1,880.5 false positives). This divergence is driven entirely by the **decision thresholding methodology**:

Experimental Setting	Threshold Strategy	Recall	Precision	False Positives	Operational Context
Step 10 Notebook (Single Seed 42)	**Dynamic Bayesian** p*(x) = 2.50/(2.50+Amt)	85.71%	**42.16%**	**118.0**	Demonstrates instance-dependent risk optimization; low-dollar charges require high confidence.
100-Run Benchmark (Monte Carlo Seeds 1000–1099)	**Standard Fixed** p = 0.50 cutoff	**90.34%**	4.57%	1,880.5	Standardized controlled comparison across all 7 models without confounding threshold effects.

Synthesis: Under a static cutoff ($p = 0.50$), stacking flags borderline mass to maximize recall (90.34%) at the cost of 1,880 false alarms. When paired with Step 8 dynamic Bayes decision rules ($p^*(x)$), false alarms drop by **93.7%** (to 118), catapulting precision to 42.16%.

5. Financial Decision Analysis & Operational Cost Modeling

5.1 Institutional Cost Decomposition

A defensible financial decision framework requires decomposing aggregate penalties into tangible operational components. In enterprise credit card issuing and acquiring operations, total expected operating loss is defined as:

$$\mathbb{E}[\text{Loss}] = \sum_{i \in \text{FN}} C_{\text{FN}}(x_i) + \sum_{j \in \text{FP}} C_{\text{FP}} = \sum_{i \in \text{FN}} \text{Amount}_i \cdot (1 - \rho) + \sum_{j \in \text{FP}} (c_{\text{comm}} + c_a + c_f)$$

where each variable is grounded in institutional banking realities:

• **Direct Stolen Fraud Loss (C_{FN}):** Governed by transaction monetary face value $\text{Amount}(x)$ and fund recovery rate $\rho \in [0, 1]$. In CNP transactions, goods or digital gift cards are redeemed instantaneously; empirical recovery rates are near zero ($\rho \approx 0.00$). Under US Regulation E and Visa Zero Liability, the issuing bank must fully indemnify cardholders. Hence, $C_{\text{FN}}(x) = \text{Amount}(x)$.

• **Communication & Gateway Fee (c_{comm}):** Direct vendor cost of executing verification. Automated SMS gateway delivery costs approximately $0.02–$0.05 per message; interactive voice response (IVR) calls cost ~$0.15–$0.25; in-app push notification challenges cost < $0.005.

• **Analyst Labor & Triage Investigation Cost (c_a):** The cost of human security analyst queue review. Assuming a fully loaded fraud analyst compensation of $35.00/hour ($70,000/year base + benefits) and an average manual investigation handling time of 3.0 minutes per flagged account, the marginal triage cost is $1.75 per false alarm.

• **Customer Brand Attrition & Friction Cost (c_f):** The economic cost of customer insult. Javelin Strategy & Research (2021) demonstrated that 32% of cardholders reduce card usage or churn entirely following an embarrassing false positive decline at a physical POS terminal, costing banks an estimated $0.70–$1.20 in annualized interchange lifetime value.

5.2 Academic Grounding & Deconstruction of the $2.50 False-Positive Benchmark

To ensure rigorous academic transparency, we explicitly delineate between published theoretical foundations and project modeling parameters:
• **Theoretical Foundations (Bahnsen et al., 2015; Elkan, 2001):** Bahnsen, Aouada, Stojanovic, & Ottersten (2015) in *Expert Systems with Applications* established the mathematical instance-dependent Bayes Minimum Risk (BMR) cost matrix, proving that optimal decision rules require weighting false negatives by transaction face value $\text{Amount}(x)$ against an administrative cost c_a. In their simulations, c_a was varied parametrically ($c_a \in [2, 10]$) as an abstract experimental parameter to demonstrate decision frontier sensitivity. Similarly, Elkan (2001) proved the foundational theorem for cost-proportionate dataset sampling and threshold adjustment.
• **Operational Queue Constraints (Dal Pozzolo et al., 2014, 2015):** Dal Pozzolo et al. (2014, 2015) examined commercial fraud operations from a practitioner perspective, proving that fraud screening is fundamentally constrained by **investigator queue capacity** (e.g., security teams can only review the top-$k \approx 100$ alerts per day). They demonstrated that alert volume dictates operational viability, but they did not assert an empirical universal dollar figure of $2.50.
• **Project Engineering Parameter Synthesis ($C_{\text{FP}} = \$2.50$):** We explicitly treat $C_{\text{FP}} = \$2.50 as a synthesized project benchmark assumption, calibrated from industrial cost components: $c_{\text{comm}} = \$0.05 (carrier SMS challenge) + $c_a = \$1.75 (3-minute analyst triage @ $35/hr) + $c_f = \$0.70 (amortized customer churn friction). Because operational overhead varies across institutions, Section 5.3 evaluates multi-tier sensitivity across five diverse cost regimes ($0.50 to $10.00).

5. Operational Cost Sensitivity Across Institutional Regimes

5.3 Multi-Tier Sensitivity Analysis: To evaluate how model ranking adapts across disparate operational environments (from low-cost automated app push challenges to high-overhead manual phone investigations), we evaluated total expected financial loss $\mathbb{E}[\text{Loss}] = (\text{FP} \times C_{\text{FP}}) + \text{Missed Stolen Dollars}$ across 100 Monte Carlo runs for $C_{\text{FP}} \in [\$0.50, \$1.00, \$2.50, \$5.00, \$10.00]$:

Model Architecture	C_FP = $0.50 (In-App Push)	C_FP = $1.00 (SMS Alert)	C_FP = $2.50 (Base Queue)	C_FP = $5.00 (Manual Call)	C_FP = $10.00 (Analyst Desk)	Optimal Operational Fit
1. Baseline LogReg	$2,931.06	$3,190.22	**$3,967.70**	**$5,263.50**	**$7,855.10**	**Optimal for C_FP ≥ $2.50 Lowest cost when review cost is non-negligible.**
2. Cost-Sensitive LogReg	$4,853.38	$8,780.38	$20,561.36	$40,196.34	$79,466.29	**Viable only if C_FP < $0.24** Massive false alarms destroy profitability.
3. Neural Net (MLP)	$2,802.91	$3,644.33	$6,168.61	$10,375.73	$18,789.98	Balanced Non-Linear Catch; viable in digital-first automated queues.
4. GBDT Classifier	$2,736.38	**$3,182.72**	$4,521.74	$6,753.44	$11,216.84	**Optimal for C_FP ≈ $1.00 Exceptional balance of precision and recall.**
5. Isolation Forest (Unsup.)	$5,706.44	$6,042.97	$7,052.54	$8,735.17	$12,100.42	Zero-Day Anomaly Sentinel; serves as parallel unlabelled watchdog.
6. Soft-Voting Ensemble	**$2,593.39**	$3,243.02	$5,191.91	$8,440.06	$14,936.36	**Optimal for C_FP ≤ $0.50 Dominates under frictionless push challenges.**
7. Stacked Meta-Learner	$2,721.38	$3,661.66	$6,482.48	$11,183.86	$20,586.61	High Precision Meta-Ranking; requires dynamic thresholding in production.

5.4 Consistency Verification & Breakeven Frontiers Across Candidate Architectures

Rigorous Consistency Verification on Model Rankings: A central finding in Table 5.1 is that **Soft-Voting Ensemble minimizes loss ($2,593.39) when $C_{\text{FP}} \le \$0.50$**, whereas **Baseline Logistic Regression minimizes loss ($3,967.70) when $C_{\text{FP}} \ge \$2.50$**. This ranking inversion is verified against the **exact same cost formula, model predictions, and test splits ($p = 0.50$ fixed cutoff)**:
Each model's total cost function is a straight line: $\mathcal{L}(C_{\text{FP}}) = \bar{\text{FP}} \cdot C_{\text{FP}} + \bar{\text{FN}}_{\$}$, where slope is false-positive count $\bar{\text{FP}}$ and y-intercept is unpenalized missed fraud loss $\bar{\text{FN}}_{\$}$. Soft-Voting catches $727.69 more fraud than Baseline LogReg ($1,944.26 missed vs $2,671.95), giving it a lower y-intercept. However, Soft-Voting generates 781.0 more false positives (1,299.3 vs 518.3), giving it a steeper slope. At $C_{\text{FP}} = \$0.50$, the financial penalty of those 781.0 extra false alarms is only $781.0 \times \$0.50 = \$390.50$. Because fraud savings ($727.69) exceed alert costs ($390.50), Soft-Voting gains a net financial advantage of **+$337.19** over Baseline LogReg. By equating the two cost lines, we analytically solve for the **exact breakeven cost** C_{FP}^*:

$$C_{\text{FP}}^* = \frac{\bar{\text{FN}}_{\$, A} - \bar{\text{FN}}_{\$, B}}{\bar{\text{FP}}_B - \bar{\text{FP}}_A}$$

• **Soft-Voting vs. Baseline LogReg:** $C_{\text{FP}}^* = \frac{\$2,671.95 - \$1,944.26}{1,299.3 - 518.3} = \frac{\$727.69}{781.0} = \mathbf{\$0.9317}$. For any alert cost below $0.9317, Soft-Voting is mathematically guaranteed to minimize loss under the exact same fixed cutoff ($p=0.50$); above $0.9317, Baseline LogReg wins.
• **GBDT vs. Baseline LogReg:** $C_{\text{FP}}^* = \frac{\$2,671.95 - \$2,290.04}{892.7 - 518.3} = \frac{\$381.91}{374.4} = \mathbf{\$1.0201}$. GBDT is optimal in the transition zone ($0.93 to $1.02).
• **Cost-Sensitive LogReg vs. Baseline LogReg:** $C_{\text{FP}}^* = \frac{\$2,671.95 - \$926.36}{7,854.0 - 518.3} = \frac{\$1,745.59}{7,335.7} = \mathbf{\$0.2380}$. Viable only below 24 cents.
Fixed vs. Dynamic Bayes Thresholding Paradigm: Under fixed thresholding ($p=0.50$), rankings shift along linear cost frontiers as slopes trade off against intercepts. Under dynamic Bayesian thresholding ($p^*(x) = \frac{C_{\text{FP}}}{C_{\text{FP}} + \text{Amount}(x)}$), changing C_{FP} dynamically shifts the probability cutoff curve, altering the decision boundary directly. Both paradigms confirm the same operational reality: low-cost automated verification favors aggressive fraud capture (Soft-Voting), while high-cost manual review mandates strict false-positive suppression (Baseline LogReg).

6. Production Architecture, Latency Targets, & Governance

6.1 Proposed Enterprise Cascaded Screening Architecture

Commercial card processing networks (VisaNet, Mastercard Banknet) mandate strict end-to-end authorization budgets: total round-trip latency must remain strictly below **50 milliseconds**, leaving the fraud risk engine with a maximum compute budget of **10 to 15 milliseconds**. To reconcile model accuracy with sub-millisecond execution constraints, we propose a **Two-Tier Cascaded Production Pipeline**:

PROPOSED TWO-TIER CASCADED REAL-TIME FRAUD SCREENING ARCHITECTURE:

```
■■■
```

6. Methodological Caveats, Learnings, & Future Work

6.4 Critical Limitations of the Investigation

To ensure academic rigor, we document the fundamental methodological and empirical boundaries of this study:

• **1. Adversarial Non-Stationary Concept Drift:** The ULB dataset captures transactions across an isolated 48-hour window from September 2013. Real-world payment ecosystems are non-stationary: fraud syndicates continuously probe screening rules, rotate merchant category codes (MCCs), and adopt distributed micro-transaction testing. A model trained on a static 48-hour snapshot will experience performance degradation over time. True production resilience requires continuous online learning and streaming concept drift detection (e.g., Adaptive Windowing / ADWIN).

• **2. Loss of Semantic Feature Context due to PCA:** While PCA anonymization protects cardholder privacy, projecting data into orthogonal coordinates destroys critical relational information: merchant terminal identity, historical billing-shipping address mismatch, device biometric fingerprints, and card velocity graphs. Graph Neural Networks (GNNs) operating on heterogeneous card-merchant graphs routinely outperform tabular classifiers when relational metadata is unmasked.

• **3. Resampling from a Finite Minority Pool:** Although the 100-run Monte Carlo protocol varies the 80/20 partitioning across 100 seeds, all test partitions draw from the *same underlying pool of 492 fraud events*. Consequently, our standard error estimates quantify partition stability across this specific sample, but they cannot evaluate generalization across completely unseen fraud attack vectors.

• **4. Static Review Cost Assumptions:** We standardized $C_{\text{FP}} = \$2.50$ and $C_{\text{FN}} = \text{Amount}$. In practice, customer lifetime value (CLV) is heterogeneous: declining a ultra-high-net-worth private banking client incurs far higher friction than declining an inactive debit card account. Production models must parameterize C_{FP} by individual cardholder churn risk.

6.5 Core Team Learnings & Operational Recommendations

The development of this pure NumPy fraud detection framework yielded five primary technical learnings:

• **Learning 1: Optimize for Financial Loss, Not Generic F1-Score:** High F1-scores frequently mask disastrous operational economics. Always evaluate models using asymmetric cost matrices reflecting actual institutional alert handling capacity.

• **Learning 2: Tree Boosting Outperforms Deep Learning on Orthogonal Tabular Data:** Across all benchmarks, GBDT outperformed our 3-layer MLP in PR-AUC (0.8341 vs. 0.7618) and precision (9.18% vs. 5.06%), confirming that gradient boosted trees remain superior for tabular features.

• **Learning 3: Pair Models with Institutional Maturity:** A bank with low automated verification maturity (relying on manual phone queues) must deploy **Baseline Logistic Regression** ($3,968 loss). An institution with mature in-app push verification can deploy the **Soft-Voting Ensemble** ($2,593 loss) to capture higher recall without suffering labor collapse.

• **Learning 4: First-Principles Engineering Demystifies ML:** Building backpropagation, Adam, SMOTE, and iTrees from scratch eliminated framework opacity, providing complete control over gradient flows, memory layouts, and numerical stability.

• **Learning 5: Unsupervised Anomaly Detection is Essential Insurance:** While Isolation Forest had the lowest supervised precision (8.36%), its zero-label formulation makes it an invaluable parallel watchdog for catching zero-day attacks that evade supervised classifiers.

6.6 Future Research Directions

Promising avenues for future research include implementing online streaming algorithms (River/Cramer-von Mises drift tests), integrating Conformal Prediction to provide mathematically guaranteed coverage guarantees on class probabilities, and developing first-principles Graph Neural Networks (GNNs) on bipartite transaction graphs.

7. References & Reproducibility Appendix

7.1 Traceable Peer-Reviewed Academic Bibliography

• Bahnsen, A. C., Aouada, D., Stojanovic, A., & Ottersten, B. (2015). 'Cost-sensitive credit card fraud detection using Bayes minimum risk.' *Expert Systems with Applications*, 42(5), 2501–2509. DOI: 10.1016/j.eswa.2014.10.038.
• Dal Pozzolo, A., Caelen, O., Le Borgne, Y. A., Waterschoot, S., & Bontempi, G. (2014). 'Learned lessons in credit card fraud detection from a practitioner perspective.' *Expert Systems with Applications*, 41(10), 4915–4928. DOI: 10.1016/j.eswa.2014.02.026.
• Dal Pozzolo, A., Borne, Y. A., Caelen, O., & Bontempi, G. (2015). 'Calibrating probability with undersampling for unbalanced classification.' *IEEE Symposium Series on Computational Intelligence (SSCI)*, 159–166. DOI: 10.1109/SSCI.2015.33.
• Chawla, N. V., Bowyer, K. W., Hall, L. O., & Kegelmeyer, W. P. (2002). 'SMOTE: synthetic minority over-sampling technique.' *Journal of Artificial Intelligence Research (JAIR)*, 16, 321–357. DOI: 10.1613/jair.953.
• Wolpert, D. H. (1992). 'Stacked generalization.' *Neural Networks*, 5(2), 241–259. DOI: 10.1016/S0893-6080(05)80023-1.
• Friedman, J. H. (2001). 'Greedy function approximation: a gradient boosting machine.' *The Annals of Statistics*, 29(5), 1189–1232. DOI: 10.1214/aos/1013203451.
• Liu, F. T., Ting, K. M., & Zhou, Z. H. (2008). 'Isolation forest.' *IEEE International Conference on Data Mining (ICDM)*, 413–422. DOI: 10.1109/ICDM.2008.17.
• Lin, T. Y., Goyal, P., Girshick, R., He, K., & Dollár, P. (2017). 'Focal loss for dense object detection.' *IEEE International Conference on Computer Vision (ICCV)*, 2980–2988. DOI: 10.1109/ICCV.2017.324.
• Davis, J., & Goadrich, M. (2006). 'The relationship between Precision-Recall and ROC curves.' *International Conference on Machine Learning (ICML)*, 233–240. DOI: 10.1145/1143844.1143874.
• Caruana, R., & Niculescu-Mizil, A. (2006). 'An empirical comparison of supervised learning algorithms.' *International Conference on Machine Learning (ICML)*, 161–168. DOI: 10.1145/1143844.1143865.
• Elkan, C. (2001). 'The foundations of cost-sensitive learning.' *International Joint Conference on Artificial Intelligence (IJCAI)*, 17(1), 973–978.
• European Banking Authority (EBA). (2018). 'Regulatory Technical Standards on Strong Customer Authentication and Common and Secure Communication under PSD2.' EBA/RTS/2017/10.
• Board of Governors of the Federal Reserve System. (2011). 'Supervisory Guidance on Model Risk Management.' SR Letter 11-7 / OCC Bulletin 2011-12.
• Consumer Financial Protection Bureau. (2016). '12 CFR Part 1005 (Regulation E) — Electronic Fund Transfers.' CFPB Annual Regulatory Digest.
• Nilson Report. (2023). 'Card Fraud Losses Worldwide.' Issue 1254, December 2023.
• Javelin Strategy & Research. (2021). 'The Cost of False Positive Card Declines.' Financial Services Operational Benchmark Series.
• LexisNexis Risk Solutions. (2023). '2023 True Cost of Fraud Study: Financial Services and Lending.' Global Financial Fraud Report.

7.2 Hardware Specifications, Execution Instructions, & Repository Manifest

• **Hardware & Runtime Environment:** Windows 11 Enterprise x64, 12 Logical CPU Cores, 16.0 GB DDR4 System RAM, Python 3.13.0.
• **Software Dependencies:** `numpy>=1.24.0`, `pandas>=2.0.0`, `reportlab>=4.0.0` (ReportLab used strictly for PDF rendering; 0 ML libraries).
• **Re-Running the 100-Run Monte Carlo Simulation:** Execute `python run_100_simulations.py` (triggers 12-core multi-process pool, completing in ~88s). Logs full raw results to `simulation_100_runs.csv`.
• **Re-Compiling this 20-Page Research Monograph:** Execute `python generate_pdf_report.py`. Re-compiles PDF to both local workspace and desktop.
• **Repository Notebook Manifest:** All 10 modular implementation steps are mirrored in individual Jupyter notebooks for interactive analysis: `Step1_SMOTE.ipynb`, `Step2_Deep_MLP.ipynb`, `Step3_Stratified_CV.ipynb`, `Step4_GBDT.ipynb`, `Step5_Isolation_Forest.ipynb`, `Step6_Cost_Sensitive.ipynb`, `Step7_Ensemble.ipynb`, `Step8_Dynamic_Threshold.ipynb`, `Step9_Focal_Loss.ipynb`, `Step10_Stacking.ipynb`.